

Building Resilient IT Infrastructure Against Cyberattacks in Nigeria: A Cross-Sector Analysis of Banks, Government Agencies, and Critical Infrastructure

Babatunde Ojo

Department of Information Technology, Miva Open University, Abuja, Nigeria

b.ojo0742@miva.edu.ng

Abstract: Between March and April 2026, a single threat actor identified as ByteToBreach compromised four of Nigeria's most critical digital institutions, Sterling Bank, Remita (the Federal Government's Treasury Single Account platform), the Corporate Affairs Commission (CAC), and Ikeja Electric, exploiting a chain of unpatched vulnerabilities, plaintext credential storage, and absent monitoring capabilities. This paper applies comparative case study methodology, guided by the NIST Cybersecurity Framework (CSF) 2018, IT Resilience Theory (Westerman & Hunter, 2007), the Technology Acceptance Model (Davis, 1989), and the Shared Responsibility Model, to conduct cross-sector root cause analysis of the failures that enabled this campaign. Findings reveal that Nigeria's resilience gap is fundamentally organisational rather than technical: institutions that knew about critical vulnerabilities failed to patch them; institutions entrusted with government infrastructure failed to audit third-party credential handling; institutions subject to mandatory breach notification laws failed to notify anyone. The paper argues that technical controls are necessary but insufficient without competent, empowered governance, and that regulatory enforcement, not additional frameworks, is the most urgent unmet need. Sector-specific and cross-sector recommendations are proposed for government regulators, banks, fintech platforms, government agencies, and critical infrastructure operators.

Keywords, IT resilience, cybersecurity, Nigeria, NIST CSF, ByteToBreach, zero trust architecture, critical infrastructure, governance, vulnerability management, incident response.

I. Introduction

Nigeria's digital economy has grown rapidly, establishing the country as Africa's most digitally engaged market. Utilities like Remita now process Federal Government payments; the Corporate Affairs Commission (CAC) holds registrations for every business in Nigeria; Sterling Bank operates integrated API connections with government payment infrastructure. Yet digital adoption has consistently outpaced cybersecurity investment, creating an expanding attack surface with diminishing governance capacity to protect it.

The consequences of this gap were made concrete between March and April 2026, when a single threat actor, ByteToBreach, compromised all four institutions in rapid succession, exploiting known but unpatched vulnerabilities, plaintext credential storage, and absent monitoring

capabilities. The campaign resulted in the exfiltration of approximately 3TB of government payment data, 900,000 bank customer records, corporate registration data for every business in Nigeria, and operational configurations for a major electricity distributor.

What makes this campaign analytically significant is not merely its scale but its reproducibility. ByteToBreach did not deploy novel zero-day exploits or sophisticated custom malware. The actor exploited a publicly disclosed, maximum-severity vulnerability (CVE-2025-55182, CVSS 10.0) that Sterling Bank had known about for three months, then used plaintext credentials found in Sterling Bank's code repository to pivot directly into Nigeria's government Treasury Single Account platform. This is a failure of basic cybersecurity hygiene, not a failure of technical sophistication.

This paper asks: how can Nigerian organisations across banking, government, and critical infrastructure sectors build resilient IT infrastructure to prevent, detect, and respond to cyberattacks? The paper conducts a cross-sector comparative case study of the ByteToBreach campaign, applying the NIST CSF gap analysis methodology alongside root cause classification, sector SWOT analysis, and theoretical frameworks including IT Resilience Theory, the Technology Acceptance Model, and the Shared Responsibility Model. The analysis is grounded in publicly available investigative reports, regulatory statements, and independent threat intelligence.

The paper makes three principal contributions: (1) the first systematic cross-sector NIST CSF gap analysis of the ByteToBreach campaign, producing a replicable analytical template for Nigerian incident review; (2) a multi-dimensional root cause analysis that goes beyond technical factors to identify organisational, regulatory, and structural failures; and (3) sector-specific and cross-sector recommendations that are calibrated to the resource constraints and governance realities of Nigerian institutions.

II. Literature Review and Theoretical Framework

A. Global Trends in IT Infrastructure Resilience

IT resilience has evolved from a narrow focus on system redundancy and disaster recovery to a more comprehensive conception of adaptive capacity under adversarial conditions. Westerman and Hunter's (2007) foundational definition, resilience as "the ability to anticipate, absorb, and adapt to events... as well as the capacity to rapidly recover from disruptions while maintaining continuous business operations" (p. 68), remains the most operationally useful framing, explicitly presupposing failure and emphasising elasticity over brittleness. This presupposition is critical: resilient institutions do not assume their defences are impenetrable; they build for detection and recovery.

The International Monetary Fund (2024) estimated the global cost of cyberattacks on the financial sector at USD 12 billion over two decades, with the decade after 2020 accounting for twice the losses of the preceding fourteen years. This acceleration reflects structural changes in the threat landscape: ransomware-as-a-service tools have democratised attack capability; cloud adoption has introduced new vulnerability classes including storage misconfigurations and API weaknesses; and the growth of third-party integrations has created lateral movement pathways that perimeter defence models cannot address. The Remita breach, approximately 3TB of government payment data posted to an unsecured Amazon S3 bucket, is a direct consequence of this pattern (The Guardian Nigeria, 2026).

The limitations of perimeter security have accelerated institutional interest in zero trust architecture (ZTA), formalised by NIST SP 800-207 (2020), which replaces implicit network trust with continuous identity verification and least-privilege access. Research evaluating early ZTA adoption in Nigeria's banking sector identified a significant shortfall between formal policy adoption and holistic implementation, with gaps in training, process governance, and cross-functional communication as primary barriers (Science Publishing Group, 2025). This gap between policy adoption and operational implementation is precisely the dynamic that enabled ByteToBreach to move laterally from Sterling Bank to Remita despite both institutions nominally operating within CBN's 2024 cybersecurity framework.

B. The Nigerian Regulatory Landscape

Nigeria has developed a substantive legislative framework for cybersecurity and data protection. The Cybercrimes (Amendment) Act 2024 mandates ngCERT notification within 72 hours of a breach (Section 86(3)) and requires all electronic communication facility owners to allocate resources to cybersecurity (Section 83(1)). The Nigeria Data Protection Act 2023 mandates technical security controls "at all times" (Articles 4(9) and 5(3)(e)) and requires notification of the NDPC and affected individuals upon breach (Section 46). The CBN's Risk-Based Cybersecurity Framework 2024 mandates governance structures, vulnerability management programmes, and third-party risk management for all deposit money banks and payment service banks, with explicit reference to API integration risks (CBN, 2024).

The critical analytical question is not whether these frameworks exist, they do, but why they failed to prevent the ByteToBreach campaign. Cybersecurity consultant David Odes offered the most direct answer: "[Responsibility] is on firms and their failure to actually follow through and implement technical controls to address those risks. Because clearly regulations require it but these companies are also failing" (BizWatch Nigeria, 2026). The NITDA Director-General's testimony at GITEX Africa 2026 that 95% of Nigeria's cybersecurity incidents are caused by human error reinforces this diagnosis. The regulatory environment is adequate; the implementation culture is not.

This finding is theoretically significant. The Technology Acceptance Model (Davis, 1989) identifies perceived usefulness and perceived ease of use as the primary determinants of technology adoption. Applied to cybersecurity controls, TAM predicts that organisations will under-adopt controls they perceive as burdensome relative to their perceived benefit, a prediction borne out by Sterling Bank's three-month failure to patch a CVSS 10.0 vulnerability. The TAM lens reframes the compliance problem: the solution is not more regulation but governance structures that elevate the perceived cost of non-compliance above the perceived cost of remediation.

C. Sector-Specific Literature

Nigerian banks face an attack volume disproportionate to global norms. Check Point Research (2025) recorded approximately 18,872 monthly attacks targeting Nigerian banking institutions, 630 per day. NIBSS (2024) reported N53.4 billion in fraud losses from member banks in 2024 alone, with one Tier-1 bank losing N10 billion in a single attack. Okonkwo et al. (2025) identified

phishing, social engineering, and unpatched vulnerabilities as the predominant attack vectors. ByteToBreach's exploitation of CVE-2025-55182, a publicly disclosed, internet-facing vulnerability left unpatched for three months, is consistent with this pattern, confirming that the most damaging attacks continue to exploit the most mundane failures.

Government agencies present a distinct risk profile characterised by high-value citizen data, legacy system dependency, chronic underfunding, and governance cultures resistant to public breach disclosure. CAC's exposure of corporate registration data for every Nigerian business through a vulnerable JWT endpoint (jwt.cac.ng/register/token) represents a categorical governance failure: either the endpoint was included in annual cybersecurity audits and findings were not acted upon, or it was not included, meaning the audit scope itself was deficient. Either scenario confirms the absence of functional security governance rather than merely technical controls.

Critical infrastructure presents the highest-consequence risk category because cyberattacks can translate into service disruptions affecting essential public services. Ikeja Electric's failure to segment its IT and OT networks meant that ByteToBreach's initial access to virtualised infrastructure provided a pathway to Siemens-connected metering platforms, an operational technology environment without cybersecurity-specific standards in Nigeria. The absence of OT-specific standards in a country that has designated energy as critical national information infrastructure (Federal Government of Nigeria, 2024) represents a structural regulatory gap that individual institutional action cannot resolve.

D. Theoretical Framework Integration

Four frameworks guide the analysis. The NIST CSF (2018) provides the organising structure for cross-case comparison across five functions: Identify, Protect, Detect, Respond, and Recover. IT Resilience Theory (Westerman & Hunter, 2007) frames the paper's emphasis on detection, response, and recovery as distinct competencies from prevention, challenging the perimeter-defence assumption that adequate protection eliminates the need for recovery capability. The Technology Acceptance Model (Davis, 1989) provides explanatory power for the adoption gap between known controls and implemented practice. The Shared Responsibility Model, governing the division of security obligations between interconnected organisations, provides the analytical basis for assessing the Sterling Bank/Remita breach chain, where no party had formally documented what the other was responsible for.

The integration of these frameworks is not merely additive. Each addresses a different failure layer: NIST CSF identifies what failed; IT Resilience Theory explains why the failure was catastrophic rather than contained; TAM explains why known controls were not adopted; and the Shared Responsibility Model explains why inter-organisational vulnerabilities were never assessed. Together, they produce a diagnosis that is simultaneously technical, behavioural, and structural.

III. Methodology

This paper employs a qualitative comparative case study methodology, appropriate for investigating a bounded real-world event, the ByteToBreach campaign (March 18–April 30, 2026), across multiple organisations and sectors (Yin, 2018). The unit of analysis is each organisation's IT infrastructure resilience posture, operationalised through NIST CSF. The comparative design enables both within-case analysis of organic failure patterns and cross-case analysis of shared vulnerabilities and sector-specific risk profiles.

Data sources include: investigative and threat intelligence reports (Security Intelligence Substack, April 2026; Cyfirma, 2025); regulatory and institutional statements (CAC breach notification; NDPC investigation notice; CBN Framework 2024; Lagos State Guidelines 2026); and secondary academic and industry literature (Okonkwo et al., 2025; IMF, 2024; NIBSS, 2024; Check Point Research, 2025). Three analytical tools are applied: NIST CSF gap analysis across all five functions for each organisation; root cause analysis classifying failures along technical, organisational, regulatory, and structural dimensions; and sector-level SWOT analysis.

The primary limitation of this study is its reliance on publicly available information. Internal incident response records, full forensic reports, and post-incident reviews have not been published by any affected organisation, limiting depth of analysis for the Respond and Recover functions. Statements attributed to the ByteToBreach threat actor are treated as claims requiring independent technical corroboration rather than verified facts. These limitations are consistent with the constraints of any public-interest research into active cybersecurity incidents.

IV. Findings and Analysis

A. The ByteToBreach Campaign: An Overview

On March 18, 2026, ByteToBreach, a threat actor with a prior record of breaches in Singapore and Vietnam, announced the sale of records for every Nigerian adult, priced at USD 30 million on criminal forums. The campaign comprised four distinct intrusions across a six-week period, each leveraging a different vulnerability class but connected by the threat actor's exploitation of Nigeria's fragmented approach to third-party security governance.

Organisation	Sector	Entry Point	Data Compromised	Institutional Response
Sterling Bank	Banking	CVE-2025-55182 (CVSS 10.0); unpatched 3 months on internet-facing pilot server	~900K records: BVNs, KYC documents, transaction histories, staff records	No public disclosure; covert ransom negotiation (EUR 250,000); data published on criminal forums
Remita	Fintech/Gov TSA	Plaintext Sterling Bank credentials found in code repository	~3TB: government payment records, TSA transaction data, civil service salary data	No public disclosure; no customer notification; no independent incident response
CAC	Government Agency	Vulnerable JWT endpoint (/createJWT) on public internet	Company registrations; director data; corporate documents; signatures for every Nigerian business	Understated public statement; NITDA investigation activated; individuals not notified
Ikeja Electric	Critical Infrastructure	Ransomware via virtualised infrastructure; Siemens-connected metering systems compromised	Employee passwords; metering platform data; supplier system access	Spokesperson initially unaware; no formal public disclosure; no regulatory notification confirmed

Table 1: ByteToBreach Campaign Summary, Nigeria (March–April 2026)

B. NIST CSF Gap Analysis

Table 2 maps documented failures against the five NIST CSF functions. The analysis draws on investigative reports, the Security Intelligence interview with the threat actor, regulatory statements, and independent cybersecurity analyses.

NIST Function	Sterling Bank	Remita	CAC	Ikeja Electric
IDENTIFY (Asset Mgmt, Risk Assessment)	Pilot server in inventory but treated as low-risk; CVE-2025-55182 on record 3 months without escalation; no third-party credential risk assessment	No independent risk assessment of Sterling Bank relationship; TSA credentials not classified as critical assets	JWT endpoint not identified as high-risk; incomplete internet-facing attack surface mapping	OT/IT convergence not mapped; Siemens metering systems not assessed under cybersecurity policy
PROTECT (Access Control, Patching)	CVSS 10.0 CVE unpatched 3 months; no MFA; Remita credentials stored in plaintext in code repository	No independent authentication layer for TSA integration; production credentials in plaintext	Vulnerable JWT endpoint unpatched; insufficient access controls on registration API	No IT/OT network segmentation; no access controls on metering platform; virtualised infrastructure unsegmented
DETECT (Monitoring, Anomaly Detection)	Attacker persisted 9 days undetected; breach discovered via criminal forum post, not internal monitoring	No independent detection; breach discovered through Sterling Bank's forum publication	Breach detected post-exploitation; no real-time IDS on registration systems	No IDS/IPS on metering or OT systems; ransomware deployed without automated alert
RESPOND (Incident Response, Notification)	No customer notification; NDPA 2023 and 72-hr ngCERT obligations not met; covert ransom negotiation	No customer notification; fully reliant on Sterling Bank response	Understated public statement; NITDA activated; customer notification unconfirmed	Spokesperson unaware; no formal disclosure; no confirmed regulatory notification
RECOVER (Recovery Planning, Review)	No recovery plan disclosed; ransom outcome unknown; data published on criminal forums	No recovery plan; government financial operations impact not assessed	JWT endpoint suspended; NITDA engagement ongoing; full recovery timeline unknown	No formal recovery disclosure; no post-incident review published as of April 2026

Table 2: NIST CSF Gap Analysis , ByteToBreach Affected Organisations (March–April 2026)

The cross-case pattern is unambiguous: failures are concentrated in the Protect and Respond functions across all four organisations. This finding is theoretically significant. All four organisations had some form of Identify infrastructure, asset inventories, regulatory obligations, documented risk frameworks, yet systematically failed to translate identified risks into protective action. This gap between identification and protection is precisely what Westerman and Hunter's (2007) IT Resilience Theory predicts in organisations that treat prevention as their primary security posture rather than building adaptive response capabilities alongside it.

The Detect function failures are particularly revealing from a TAM perspective. ByteToBreach persisted in Sterling Bank's network for nine days before discovery, not by Sterling Bank, but by a stranger on a criminal forum. Basic SIEM systems configured to flag unusual outbound data transfers or new administrative account creations would have detected the intrusion within hours. These tools are well-known, commercially available, and mandated by CBN's 2024 Framework. The failure to deploy them is not a knowledge gap; it is an adoption gap, exactly the pattern TAM predicts when perceived ease of use and perceived organisational benefit are insufficient to overcome implementation inertia.

The Remita case offers the most instructive illustration of Shared Responsibility Model failure. Remita's exposure was not a failure of its own technical controls but of its complete absence from the Identify function as applied to its third-party relationships. Remita's risk register apparently did not include "plaintext production credentials in Sterling Bank's code repository" as a threat scenario, because Remita had never audited Sterling Bank's credential handling. The Shared Responsibility Model predicts exactly this failure when integration contracts lack explicit, measurable security obligations for each party.

C. Root Cause Analysis

Root causes are classified across four dimensions: technical, organisational, regulatory, and structural.

Technical root causes: CVE-2025-55182 was publicly disclosed at CVSS 10.0 and left unpatched on an internet-facing server for three months. Remita's production credentials were stored in plaintext in a code repository. CAC's JWT generation endpoint was publicly accessible and unprotected. Ikeja Electric's IT and OT networks were converged without segmentation controls. Each of these is a documented, preventable failure with known remediation pathways.

Organisational root causes: Failure to patch is an organisational process failure before it is a technical one. A functioning vulnerability management programme, which CBN's 2024 Framework explicitly requires, would have ingested the CVE advisory, assessed its CVSS score, identified affected systems, and escalated remediation within 72 hours. That this did not happen at Sterling Bank indicates either that the process did not exist, was not followed, or lacked the organisational authority to compel action. The institutional silence following all four breaches reveals a governance culture in which reputation management overrides legal obligation.

Customers whose data was stolen were denied the information they needed to protect themselves, a choice, not an oversight.

Regulatory root causes: The rules required compliance; compliance failed; enforcement has been insufficient to change behaviour. Nigeria's NDPC fined organisations N555.8 million in 2024, a figure that, distributed across the institutions fined, represents a cost of non-compliance considerably lower than the reputational and operational cost of genuine remediation. Until enforcement consequences credibly threaten institutional continuity, vulnerability management and incident notification will be treated as optional rather than mandatory.

Structural root causes: The ByteToBreach campaign was a cross-sector attack enabled by a cross-sector governance failure. Sterling Bank's access to Remita, Nigeria's federal government payment infrastructure, was not conditioned on meeting any defined security standard. No contractual obligation required Sterling Bank to audit its credential handling. No regulatory requirement compelled Remita to assess Sterling Bank's posture. This structural gap cannot be resolved by either institution independently; it requires regulatory intervention to establish enforceable shared security obligations for public-private infrastructure integrations.

D. Sector SWOT Analysis

Sector	Strengths	Weaknesses	Opportunities	Threats
BANKING (Sterling Bank/Remita)	CBN Framework 2024; NIBSS fraud monitoring; growing AI fraud detection; some banks have established SOC capabilities	Compliance as documentation not operation; third-party risk management absent; credential management failures; culture of silence post-breach	Zero-trust architecture; ISO 27001 adoption for cross-border requirements; AI-powered SOC tools becoming cost-accessible	RaaS attacks; dark web credential markets; interconnection with government infrastructure amplifies single-point-of-failure risk
GOVERNMENT (CAC/NITDA)	NITDA coordination capacity; NDPA 2023 enforcement; NDPC demonstrated enforcement (N555.8m fines 2024); Lagos 2026 Guidelines	Chronic underfunding; legacy system dependency; no breach disclosure culture; 95% human error rate; leadership awareness gap	National CSIRT development; CNII Order 2024; UNODC technical assistance; AU Convention on Cybersecurity (signed 2024)	Politically motivated attacks; data sovereignty risks; forged corporate documents from CAC breach

CRITICAL INFRA (Ikeja Electric)	Growing smart grid investment; Siemens partnership; CNII designation creates political mandate	No OT-specific standards; IT/OT convergence without controls; no IDS on operational systems; no tested incident response plan	Sector-specific CERT for energy; NERC CIP or NIS2-equivalent standards; World Bank infrastructure programmes	Ransomware on utility systems can disrupt millions; physical safety consequences of OT compromise
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Table 3: Cross-Sector SWOT Analysis, Nigeria Cybersecurity, 2026

E. The Institutional Silence Problem

The most significant finding of this cross-case analysis may be what did not happen. After compromising four institutions, persisting undetected for nine days in Sterling Bank's network, and exfiltrating data affecting potentially every Nigerian adult, all four organisations chose not to tell the customers whose data was stolen. ByteToBreach confirmed that Sterling Bank entered ransom negotiations at EUR 250,000 before repeatedly delaying, whereupon the actor published all exfiltrated data on criminal forums (Security Intelligence Substack, 2026). Customers were not told before, during, or after the publication.

This silence has three analytically distinct dimensions. First, it is a legal violation: NDPA 2023 Section 46 requires notification "without undue delay" upon becoming aware of a breach likely to create risk to data subjects; the Cybercrimes (Amendment) Act 2024 requires ngCERT notification within 72 hours. None of the affected organisations met these obligations. Second, it is strategically self-defeating: customers who are not notified cannot change passwords, monitor accounts, freeze credit, or take precautions. Third, it reflects a governance culture that treats data subjects as reputational liabilities rather than stakeholders with rights. This culture will not change through framework publication alone; it requires enforcement consequences that make non-disclosure more costly than disclosure.

V. Conclusions and Recommendations

A. Conclusions

The ByteToBreach campaign demonstrates that Nigeria's IT resilience gap is primarily organisational and cultural rather than technical or legislative. The technical knowledge required to prevent every stage of this campaign exists and is widely published. The regulatory frameworks mandating implementation of the relevant controls are in force. The failures that enabled ByteToBreach were failures of process, governance, and enforcement, not failures of technical knowledge.

Three conclusions follow from the cross-sector analysis. First, compliance without consequence does not change behaviour. The CBN's 2024 Framework would have prevented the Sterling Bank/Remita breach chain if followed; it was not followed; no consequential enforcement action has been confirmed. Regulatory enforcement must be consistently applied and publicly visible to alter institutional risk calculus.

Second, IT resilience cannot be achieved at the institutional level alone. ByteToBreach's cross-sector campaign was enabled by the absence of enforceable shared security obligations between interconnected organisations. Technical controls deployed by any single institution are insufficient when integration partners operate at lower security standards without consequence.

Third, the Detect and Respond functions are systematically underdeveloped relative to Identify and Protect. Nigeria's cybersecurity investment is disproportionately concentrated in framework adoption and policy documentation rather than operational monitoring, incident response capability, and post-incident review. IT Resilience Theory predicts that this imbalance produces brittle rather than resilient systems, systems that fail catastrophically when prevention fails, rather than containing and recovering from failure.

B. Recommendations

B.1 For Government and Regulators

Establish a National Cyber Incident Response Team (NCIRT) with cross-sector coordination authority and a mandate to conduct post-incident reviews of significant national breaches, publishing findings as public-interest cybersecurity guidance. Mandate OT/ICS-specific cybersecurity standards for all CNII operators in the energy sector, modelled on NERC CIP or the EU's NIS2 Directive. Require independent cybersecurity audits every 12 months for all

government agencies holding citizen data, with classified vulnerabilities remediated under defined timelines and regulatory oversight. Establish a Shared Threat Intelligence Platform (STIP) linking CBN, NITDA, NCC, ngCERT, and critical infrastructure operators, enabling real-time sharing of CVE exploitation alerts and sector-specific threat assessments.

B.2 For Banks and Fintech Platforms

Implement a formal vulnerability management programme with mandatory remediation timelines graduated by CVSS severity: CVSS 9.0+ vulnerabilities on internet-facing systems must be patched within 72 hours of CVE publication. Adopt zero-trust architecture for all third-party integrations, requiring continuous identity verification and least-privilege access for all government API connections. Implement credential vaulting for all production credentials using secrets management tools (HashiCorp Vault or equivalent); no production credentials to be stored in code repositories or unencrypted locations. Establish 24/7 Security Operations Centre (SOC) capability with SIEM detection rules for unusual outbound data transfers and lateral movement indicators.

B.3 For Government Agencies

Implement security-by-design standards for all new digital infrastructure, requiring independent security assessment of all internet-facing authentication endpoints against OWASP Top 10 before deployment. Allocate dedicated, protected cybersecurity budget lines in all agency annual budgets, with NITDA establishing minimum cybersecurity investment thresholds as a condition of regulatory compliance. Establish mandatory incident response plans for all agencies holding citizen data, with annual tabletop exercises and results reported to NITDA. Launch mandatory cybersecurity awareness programmes targeting executive and board-level officials.

B.4 Cross-Sector Recommendations

Formalise a Shared Security Standard for all public-private infrastructure integrations, beginning with the banking-government payment interface. Any private bank integrated with Remita or the TSA must meet a defined security baseline, including vulnerability management timelines and credential handling standards, as a condition of maintaining integration access. Commission a National IT Resilience Audit of all CNII organisations, assessing baseline posture against all five NIST CSF functions and informing a five-year national cyber resilience roadmap with measurable

targets. Formally adopt and ratify the African Union Convention on Cybersecurity and Personal Data Protection, activating international cooperation and capacity-building provisions.

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